

# Essays on Inequality and the Distribution of Wealth

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# Roadmap

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# Introduction

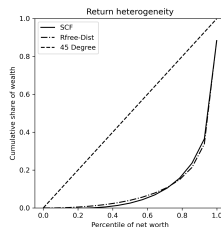
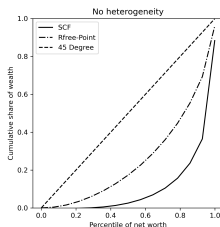
- ❶ **Chapter 1:** Can return heterogeneity help a standard consumption-saving model match empirical wealth moments?
- ❷ **Chapter 2:** Does trust matter empirically for returns to net wealth, and can a persistent, household component be estimated?
- ❸ **Chapter 3:** Given wealth is tied to property rights, social institutions, and historical factors, is the standard (objective) inequality measure understated for racial differences in wealth in the U.S.?

*Taken together, these chapters move from explaining wealth concentration, to explaining realized performance, to measuring inequality itself.*

# Chapter 1: Matching Wealth Moments with Heterogeneous Returns

- Labor income helps to explain part, but not all, of the skewness in the distribution of wealth.
- I estimate a distribution of returns across households in a standard consumption-saving model to produce a distribution of wealth that can be compared to data.
- I show that adding return heterogeneity in this way yields a much better fit to SCF wealth moments, especially for the bottom 60% of the wealth distribution.

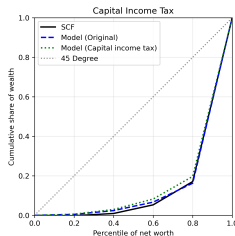
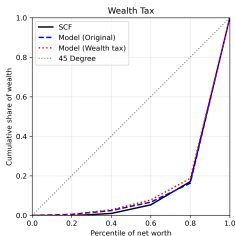
# Chapter 1: Main Result



|                  | 0–20   | 20–40 | 40–60 | 60–80 | 80–95 | Top 5% |
|------------------|--------|-------|-------|-------|-------|--------|
| Data             | −0.002 | 0.011 | 0.044 | 0.118 | 0.255 | 0.574  |
| No heterogeneity | 0.030  | 0.085 | 0.142 | 0.224 | 0.285 | 0.233  |
| Heterogeneity    | 0.005  | 0.019 | 0.042 | 0.096 | 0.251 | 0.588  |

Wealth shares by net-worth percentile, infinite-horizon (PY) model. Estimated uniform distribution:  $R = 1.0204$ ,  $\nabla = 0.06833$ .

# Chapter 1: Policy Implications — Wealth Distribution



- Two revenue-equivalent policies (each raising 1% of labor income):  
 wealth tax  $1 + r - \tau_w$  lowers the entire stock; capital income tax  $1 + (1 - \tau_{ci})r$  reduces interest income on capital.
- The CIT reduces wealth concentration by more than the WT in both models: households with highest returns lose the most from the capital income tax.

# Chapter 1: Policy Implications — Welfare

- Welfare is measured by consumption-equivalent  $\Delta$ : the % increase in consumption under the WT that makes a newborn indifferent to the CIT.  $\Delta > 0$  means CIT preferred.
- Aggregate:**  $\Delta = 0.20\%$  (PY) and  $0.15\%$  (LC) — the CIT is preferred on average for a newborn.
- By return type:** 6 of 7 types prefer the CIT; only the highest-return type ( $R = 1.079$ ) prefers the WT. Low-return types gain most from switching to CIT since many earn little or no capital income.

|                         | Type 1 | Type 2 | Type 3 | Type 4 | Type 5 | Type 6 | Type 7 |
|-------------------------|--------|--------|--------|--------|--------|--------|--------|
| Baseline $R$            | 0.962  | 0.981  | 1.001  | 1.020  | 1.040  | 1.059  | 1.079  |
| CE $\Delta$ (WT vs CIT) | +0.23% | +0.27% | +0.34% | +0.32% | +0.30% | +0.24% | -0.31% |

## Chapter 2: Moderate Trust and Maximum Performance on Financial Investments

- Economic performance is hump-shaped in trust: moderate levels of trust are associated with higher individual income.
- I use the RAND HRS product to show that returns to net wealth are also hump-shaped in trust.
- I show that the return-maximizing level of trust is around 7, and the persistent household component can be reliably estimated.



## Chapter 2: Main Result

- Trust and  $\text{Trust}^2$  are jointly significant: returns to net wealth are hump-shaped in trust.

|                       | Pooled OLS        |                   | CRE                |                    |
|-----------------------|-------------------|-------------------|--------------------|--------------------|
|                       | (1) Baseline      | (2) Extended      | (3) Baseline       | (4) Extended       |
| Trust                 | 0.03***<br>(0.01) | 0.03***<br>(0.01) | 0.03***<br>(0.01)  | 0.03***<br>(0.01)  |
| Trust <sup>2</sup>    | -0.00**<br>(0.00) | -0.00**<br>(0.00) | -0.00***<br>(0.00) | -0.00***<br>(0.00) |
| <i>N</i>              | 2,919             | 2,899             | 2,919              | 2,899              |
| <i>R</i> <sup>2</sup> | 0.04              | 0.04              | 0.15               | 0.15               |
| Trust joint <i>p</i>  | 0.01              | 0.00              | 0.01               | 0.02               |
| $\rho$                |                   |                   | 0.16               | 0.15               |
| $\sigma_u$            |                   |                   | 0.16               | 0.15               |
| $\sigma_e$            |                   |                   | 0.36               | 0.36               |

*Controls: age, wealth, education, year; col. 2 & 4 add demographics.*

## Chapter 2: How is Maximal Trust Estimated?

Starting from the panel regression with controls held fixed,

$$r_{it}^{net} = \alpha_i + \lambda_t + X'_{it}\beta + \beta_1 \text{Trust}_i + \beta_2 \text{Trust}_i^2 + \varepsilon_{it},$$

the implied marginal effect of trust on returns is

$$\frac{\partial r_{it}^{net}}{\partial \text{Trust}_i} = \beta_1 + 2\beta_2 \text{Trust}_i.$$

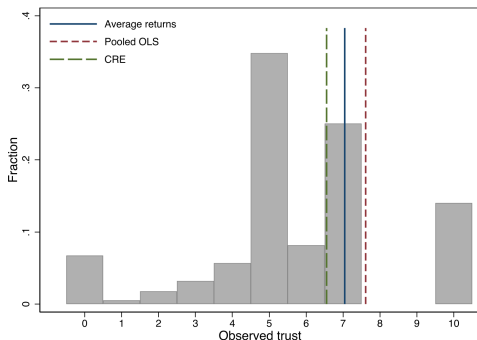
Setting this derivative to zero gives the critical point

$$\text{Trust}^* = -\frac{\beta_1}{2\beta_2}.$$

When  $\hat{\beta}_1 \geq 0$  and  $\hat{\beta}_2 \leq 0$ , the fitted relationship in trust is concave (hump-shaped), so  $\text{Trust}^*$  is a maximum.

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## Chapter 2: Return-Maximizing Trust Level



| Specification | No controls | With controls |
|---------------|-------------|---------------|
| Avg. returns  | 6.70        | 7.07          |
| Pooled OLS    | 6.89        | 7.61          |
| CRE           | 6.34        | 6.59          |

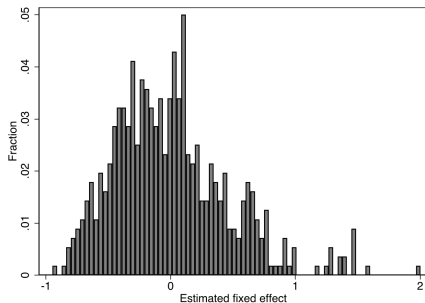
- Estimated return-maximizing trust is consistently 6 or 7 across all specifications.
- A large mass of respondents is concentrated around the estimated optimal trust level.

## Chapter 2: Persistent Return Component

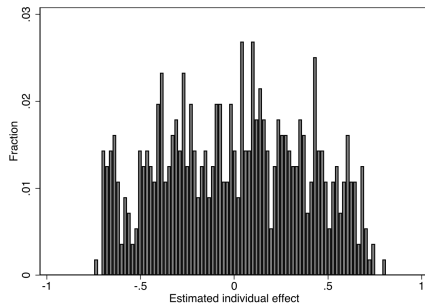
- The FE and CRE models both produce estimates of the persistent component of returns.
- Note: FE absorbs all time-invariant variation (trust, demographics) into the fixed effect, while CRE estimates it separately.
- A substantially larger share of the total variance in returns to net wealth is due to variability in the persistent component under FE ( $\rho = 0.65$ ) than under CRE ( $\rho = 0.15$ ).
- The individual effect's standard deviation is also far larger under FE ( $\sigma_u = 0.45$ ) than under CRE ( $\sigma_u = 0.15$ ).

|            | FE   | CRE  |
|------------|------|------|
| $\rho$     | 0.65 | 0.15 |
| $\sigma_u$ | 0.45 | 0.15 |
| $\sigma_e$ | 0.33 | 0.36 |

## Chapter 2: Estimated Individual Effects — FE vs. CRE



*FE: estimated individual effects (full controls).*

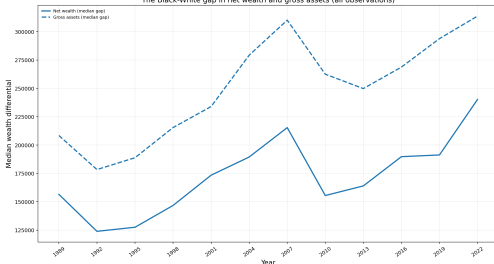


*CRE: estimated individual effects (full controls).*

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# Chapter 3: Measuring Wealth Inequality Under Ambiguity

The Black-White gap in net wealth and gross assets (all observations)



- Wealth is a complex object: it is far more skewed than income, and it requires enforceable ownership rights and legal/political institutions.
- Racial differences in wealth are well-documented in the U.S. and have generally risen over time.
- I argue that insights from the choice-under-uncertainty literature can be used to propose a measure of inequality aversion that addresses these complexities in wealth and its distribution.

## Chapter 3: A Thought Experiment

- To see this, consider two budget-balanced transfer policies in a population of 60 (10 Black, 50 White; each group with meaningful differences in wealth, so that redistribution matters):
  - **Policy A:** take 20 units from each of 5 rich Black households; give 4 units to each of 25 poor White households.
  - **Policy B:** take 4 units from each of 25 rich White households; give 20 units to each of 5 poor Black households.
- Both policies move the same total wealth (100 units). The standard (objective) inequality measure says they have the same effect on wealth inequality.

*Yet it isn't hard to imagine these two policies would be received differently in practice.*

## Chapter 3: Why Would They Be Viewed Differently?

- **Historical context:** History of tangible racial oppression in the U.S. (like exclusion from owning property). Wealth accumulates over time and passes through generations. This could lead to a voting public not being indifferent between the two policies (as theory would suggest).
- **The birth lottery and Rawls:** Social institutions operate behind a veil of ignorance: we make rules that benefit or harm certain groups without knowing which state or group we will be born into. This “birth lottery” rationale motivates a max-min principle for ranking social alternatives.
- The choice under ambiguity model utilizes a similar max-min structure using the same intuition to derive a measure of inequality aimed at characterizing racial differences in wealth.



## Chapter 3: Inequality Measurement — Setup

**Input:** An income frequency distribution  $p(y)$  — for each income level  $y \in [0, \bar{y}]$ ,  $p(y)$  is the share of the population at that income level. This is the standard object in the inequality literature; the objects being ranked are *full distributions*, not individual outcomes.

**Objective (Atkinson) measure.** A social planner with welfare function  $U(y)$  (increasing, concave) ranks income distributions by expected utility:

$$W^O = \int_0^{\bar{y}} U(y) p(y) dy.$$

The *equally distributed equivalent* income  $y_{EDE}$  satisfies  $U(y_{EDE}) = W^O$ . The inequality index is:

$$I^O = 1 - \frac{y_{EDE}}{\mu}, \quad \mu = \text{mean income}.$$

Using the CRRA welfare function  $U(y) = \frac{y^{1-\epsilon}}{1-\epsilon}$  (with  $\epsilon \geq 0$  governing inequality aversion) yields a mean-independent, unit-free measure  $I^O \in [0, 1]$ .

## Chapter 3: The Ambiguity-Based Measure

**Reinterpreting wealth.** A wealth distribution is modeled as a *state-contingent income distribution*: fix a state space  $S = \{\text{Black}, \text{White}\}$  — the “birth lottery,” in the spirit of Rawls’ veil of ignorance — and let each act  $f \in F$  assign to every state  $s \in S$  an income frequency distribution,  $f(s) = p(s)(y)$ .

The ambiguity-averse welfare criterion takes the worst-case weighting over beliefs  $\lambda \in \Delta(S)$ :

$$W^A = \min_{\lambda \in \Delta(S)} \int_S \int_0^{\bar{y}} U(y) p(s)(y) dy d\lambda = \min_{s \in S} \mathbb{E}_{p(s)}[U(y)].$$

The minimum puts all weight on whichever racial group has the lower within-group expected utility that year.

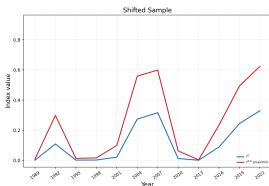
The ambiguity EDE solves  $U(w_{EDE}^A) = W^A$ , giving the wealth inequality measure:

$$I^A = 1 - \frac{w_{EDE}^A}{\mu}.$$

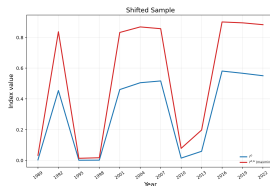
Since  $W^A \leq W^O$  by construction,  $I^A \geq I^O$ : the ambiguity criterion **systematically reports higher inequality** than the objective benchmark for the same wealth distribution.

# Chapter 3: Ambiguity-Based Wealth Inequality

## Net Wealth



## Gross Assets



- Both measures track the general trend in the median wealth-gap. The wealth inequality aversion measure performs better since it is constructed while controlling for racial dynamics.

Shown for  $\epsilon = 0.5$  (moderate inequality aversion);  $I^A \geq I^O$  holds for every  $\epsilon \in \{0, 0.25, 0.5, 1, 1.5, 2\}$ .

# Conclusion

- **Chapter 1:** return heterogeneity can match key wealth moments in a structural macro model, with an estimated distribution close to empirical evidence.
- **Chapter 2:** returns to net wealth exhibit a hump-shaped relationship with trust, and the maximizing level of trust is around 7.
- **Chapter 3:** the ambiguity-based wealth inequality measure implies more inequality than the standard objective benchmark and tracks the general trend in the median racial wealth-gap.